

Software Engineering Programming - JavaScript

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History

Web 1.0 - Static HTML

- HTML was invented to display Document Object Model (DOM) information on web browsers.
- When web servers get a request from clients (mostly web browsers), they send HTML files as a response (Web 1.0).
- CSS (Cascading Style Sheet) was invented to render HTML elements on a web browser more flexibly.

HTML

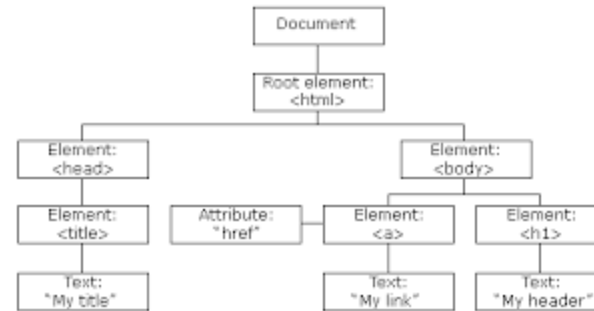


CSS



Web 2.0 - CGI

- With the invention of CGI (Common Gateway Interface) (Web 2.0), servers can generate HTML DOM dynamically from the request.
- JavaScript was invented to manipulate HTML structure (DOM) on the clients' side.



- With the invention of JavaScript, we can have a dynamic web page (DOM) both from a server-side (CGI) and a client-side (JavaScript).
- This code shows JavaScript code that accesses an element with "one" id, for example, `<h1 id="one">...</h1>`, and displays the content using the `alert()` method.

```
<h1 id="one">Hello</h1> <!-- HTML -->

<script type="text/javascript"> <!-- JavaScript -->
  var text = document.getElementById("one").innerHTML;
  alert(text); <!-- displays Hello -->
</script>
```

- JavaScript was not invented as an OOP language but as a Functional Programming/Prototype language.
- It is because JavaScript was invented in 10 days by Brendan Eich for the Netscape web browser.
- He had to make the language as simple as possible, not using the complex OOP model.



- JavaScript models LISP/Scheme (the first functional programming language). So, JavaScript uses functional programming approaches a lot.
- JavaScript also has the Prototype language feature inherited from Self.
- It has no connection with Java, but to enhance sales of JavaScript, they intentionally named it JavaScript.



Functional Programming

What is Functional Programming (FP)

- In the OOP paradigm, we have two different entities in programming: data (fields) and code (methods).
- We treat data and code differently in OOP, as in this example Dog class.

```
class Dog {  
    String name = "Sparky"; // data (fields)  
  
    void bark() { // code (methods)  
        ...  
    }  
}
```

- In the FP paradigm, there is no difference between the data and code; in other words, we treat the code as the same as the data.
- We can define a variable (line 1) and a function (line 2), but the function is nothing more than a lambda expression (line 3) as a value (data).

```
val x = 3  
add x y = x + y  
val add = (x, y) => (x + y)
```

- Using this idea, a function can be an argument to other high-level functions.
- In this example, we can give add or sub function as an argument to the `high_level_function`.
- This is possible, because code (function) is the same as data (variables) in FP.

```
val add = (x, y) => (x + y)
val sub = (x, y) => (x - y)
val high_level_function = (f, x, y) => f(x, y)
high_level_function(add, 10, 20) // returns 10 + 20
high_level_function(sub, 10, 20) // returns 10 - 20
```

JavaScript and Lisp/Scheme

- JavaScript uses functional programming approaches as it is based on Lisp/Scheme.
- The first method (line 1) is used to define a method in JavaScript.
- However, it is OK to use the FP way to treat a function as a data, like Lisp/Scheme (line 5); we call it lambda (λ) expression (lines 2 -- 3).

```
function add(x,y) {return x + y; }  
var add2 = function (x, y){ return x + y; }  
var add3 = (x, y) => {return x + y;}
```

```
(define (add) (lambda (x y) (+ x y))) ; Scheme code
```

- In Lisp/Scheme, functions are the same as data with a type (lines 3 -- 4 for function and line 2 for data).
- So, any function can be used as an argument to any function (line 5).
- In JavaScript, we can now understand why a function can be used as an argument (line 8) to another function (lines 11 -- 12).

```
// scheme
(define x 3)
(define (high_order_function f) ( ;; f is a function
  (apply f '(2 3))) ; or (f 2 3)
(high_order_function (lambda (x y) (+ x y)))

// JavaScript (f is a function)
function high_order_function(f) {return f(2, 3);}
var r = high_order_function(function (x,y) {return x+y;})
var r = high_order_function((x,y) => {return x+y;})
```

- We can understand JavaScript programming better when we are familiar with functional programming styles.
- This is an example of event-driven programming in JavaScript using functional programming.
- It is interesting to notice that Java adopts the functional programming style for its event-driven programming (CSC 360).

```
<p id="hello">Hello</p>
<button id="button">Button</button>

<script>
document.getElementById('button').addEventListener(
  'click',
  function() { // <- function is given as an argument
    document.getElementById('hello').innerHTML = "Good bye";
  });
</script>
```

- There is another example; we also can understand why there are two ways to iterate over an array.
- Non-functional (procedural) way with variables and for loop (lines 1 - 3).
- Functional way to use function (lambda expression) as an argument of a function (lines 5 - 7).
- Java also adopts this functional programming style (CSC 360).

```
var x = [1,2,3,4];
for (var i = 0; i < x.length; i++) {
    console.log(x[i])
}
x.forEach(function(a) { // this is better
    console.log(a)
});
```

Const, Var, and Let

Let, Var, and Const

- JavaScript has two ways to make a variable: let and var.
- The difference between them is that (a) the variables defined with 'let' cannot be redefined, but (b) 'var' variables are OK with the redefine.
- The variables defined with 'const' cannot be modified.

- The code shows an example. Line 6 is an error as we try to redefine the variable a that is defined with 'let.'
- It is OK to update the value defined with let as in line 7 or redefine the variable defined with var as in line 8.
- It is not OK to change the constant value as in line 9.

```
if (true) { // to make local variables
  let a = 1;
  var b = 2;
  const c = 3;
  if (true) { // to make local variables
    var a = 4; // Error as a is let defined
    a = 3; // OK
    let b = 3; // OK as b is var defined
    c = 4; //Error
  }
  console.log(a);
  console.log(b);
}
```

Why let and var?

- JavaScript was a simple language with only one modifier, 'var.'
- However, var has many issues, including redefinition; especially, var is function scoped, not block scoped, to cause many problems, as the line 7.
- So, JavaScript introduced 'let' to introduce the block scope (CSC 260).

```
function run() {  
  {  
    var moo = "Mooo"  
    let baz = "Bazz";  
    console.log(moo, baz); // Moo Bazz  
  }  
  console.log(moo); // Moo ← It's not OK to access moo in the other block  
  console.log(baz); // ReferenceError  
}
```

Just Use Let

- So, to avoid this confusion, it is recommended to use let variables, which are block scoped.
- Don't use var variables unless you know what you are doing.
- When we define a variable using let, we can't redefine in the same block, but we can do it in a different block; it's similar to Java

```
var x = 10
var x = 20 // You should have a reason to do this
let z = 20
//let z = 40 // Error!
{let z = 40} // This is OK
z = 30
```

JSON Object and JavaScript Function

JavaScript and JSON

- JSON (JavaScript Object Notation) is a representation to express the idea of a dictionary in JavaScript.
- JSON was invented to share information between a web server and a web browser in JavaScript.
- As JavaScript becomes popular, JSON format is used outside JavaScript to make it a language-independent data format.

AJAX

- JavaScript communicates with servers with AJAX (Asynchronous JavaScript and XML), and JSON objects represent the shared information.
- Using AJAX with JavaScript is complicated, so we often use jQuery (line 2).
- This is the code to request a web server with the POST function using JSON object.

```
<script>
$.ajax({
  method : 'POST',
  url : '/add',
  data : 'study'
})
</script>
```

JavaScript as Prototype Language

- JavaScript is a Prototype language.
- In the prototype languages, they do not instantiate a new object; instead, they copy an existing object and modify the copied object.
- In this example, the new operator does not instantiate a new Abc but copies the existing Abc object and replaces the name as 'Sam'.

```
function Abc() { // Abc object
  ...
}
var a = new Abc('Sam');
```

Function in an Object

- A JSON object can contain anything, including a function.
- We can use the function in an object, notice that lambda expression is used.
- JavaScript can mimic an OOP object with data and function this way.

```
var obj = {  
  data: 'Sam',  
  add: function(x,y) {return x + y;}  
}  
console.log(obj.add(10, 20))
```

This in an Object

- When a function has 'this', it means the object that contains the function.
- So, when we access any data in an object, we should prepend 'this.'
- This feature also mimics OOP (CSC 260).

```
var obj = {  
  data: 'Sam',  
  getData: function() {return this.data;} // returns 'Sam'  
  t: function() {return this;}  
}  
  
console.log(obj.getData())  
// t() returns this object  
console.log(obj.t())
```

This Keyword in => Function

- We can use the arrow notation (lambda expression) in an object, but **We should be careful when we use 'this' in an arrow function!**
- JavaScript functions do not return the object when we use 'this' in the function defined with the => notation.
- So, we should use the => notation only when we don't use other data in an object.

```
var obj = {  
  data: 'Sam',  
  t: function() {return this;},  
  t2: () => {return this;}  
}  
console.log(obj.t()) // returns JSON object  
console.log(obj.t2()) // returns {}
```

Apply

- The apply high-order function applies a function to arguments.
- It is one of the most frequently used in FP.
- As the Lisp/Scheme example shows, when we use apply function, it applies the function hi to the arguments '(1 2 3).
- The result is $(+ 1 2 3) == 6$.

```
(define (hi x y z) (+ x y z))  
(apply hi `(1 2 3)) ; it applies arguments (1 2 3) to the hi
```

- JavaScript has the function `apply()` but uses a somewhat different form.
- Instead of the Lisp/Scheme form 'apply f a', JavaScript uses 'f.apply(a).'
- In this example, we apply the function `hello()` to an object `person2`.

```
var person = {  
  hello : function(){  
    console.log(this.name)  
  }  
}  
var person2 = {  
  name : 'Sam'  
}  
person.hello.apply(person2)
```

- If necessary, we can give additional arguments to the function hello.
- In this example, arguments '[1,2,3]' is given to the hello() function.
- Remember that the additional arguments should be in a list, as this idea is borrowed from Lisp/Scheme.

```
var person = {  
  hello : function(x, y, z){  
    console.log(this.name + ` Hello ${x}-${y}-${z}`)  
  }  
}  
var person2 = {  
  name : 'Sam'  
}  
person.hello.apply(person2, [1,2,3]);
```

Call

- The funcall() function in Lisp/Scheme is similar to the apply() function.
- The only difference is that we give each argument to the function (line 1).
- JavaScript follows the same convention; when we use call() instead of apply(), we should give arguments one by one.

```
(funcall hi 1 2 3) ;; Lisp example  
person.hello.call(person2, 1,2,3); // JavaScript
```

The 'this' in JavaScript

- Compared to the **this** in Java that references this object, the **this** in Javascript can refer to different objects depending on where it is invoked.
- This is confusing, and it can be a source of serious bugs. So, we should be careful when we use the **this** in JavaScript.
- This code shows that the **this** returns different objects depending on where it is used.

```
'use strict'
console.log(this) // {Window} <- when invoked in a global context
function a() {
  console.log(this)
} // undefined <- when invoked in a function
a()
```

Strings

JavaScript String

- Java has a char type (primitive value) and a String (reference type object), and we use `'.'` to represent a character and `'...'` for a Java String (CSC 260).
- JavaScript has only strings, and we use one notation `'...'`, and we can concatenate strings and variables using the `'+'` operator like Java (line 2).
- We also can interpolate strings (using variables in a string) with ``...`` (reverse quotation) and `${...}` as in line 3.

```
var cruel = 'cruel';  
var line = 'hello ' + cruel + ' world';  
var line2 = `hello ${cruel} world`;
```

JavaScript Tagged List

- When the interpolated string is used as an argument to a function, the function can analyze the input to extract values.
- We call this feature 'tagged list.'
- In this example, the analyzer function parses the string argument to retrieve var1 and var2.

```
var pants = 0; var socks = 100
function analyzer(string, var1, var2) {
  if(var1 == 0){
    console.log(`Pants are sold out, Socks:` + var2);
  }
}
analyzer`pants${pants} socks${socks}`
```

- Notice that this code is output from Quokka extension.
- It displays parsed input results in lines 87 - 89.
- In other words, the values in any interpolated string can be retrieved using this method.

```
82  // String Analyzer with Tagged Literals
83  var pants = 0;
84  var socks = 100;
85
86  function analyzer(string, var1, var2) {
87      string [ 'pants', ' socks', '' ]
88      var1 0
89      var2 100
90      if(var1 = 0){
91          console.log(`Pants are sold out, Socks:` + var2);  Pants are sold out,
92      }
93  }
94  analyzer`pants${pants} socks${socks}`
```

Prototype Language

Old Way to Make Objects

- JavaScript is a prototype-based language, not an OOP language.
- This means that when we have a prototype object, we can copy it to make another object.
- To do this, we need **a function that contains members (elements with the this)** (lines 1 - 3).

```
function Machine(){  
  this.name = 'Sam'; // Don't forget this  
}
```

- It is important to notice that the prototype function's variables must have the 'this.' keyword prepended.
- Also, we need to follow the convention that the prototype function name starts with a capital letter.
- Then, we can use the new operator to make an object from a prototype function.

```
function Machine(){ // prototype function
  this.name = 'Sam'; // Don't forget 'this'
}

var person1 = new Machine(); // {name: 'Sam'}
var person2 = new Machine(); // {name: 'Sam'}
```

- We can add new functions in the prototype function.
- We can call the functions in the objects (lines 9 - 10).

```
function Machine2(){  
  this.name = 'Sam';  
  this.hello = function() {  
    console.log('Hello ' + this.name)  
  }  
}  
  
var person1 = new Machine2();  
var person2 = new Machine2();  
person1.hello() // 'Hello Sam'  
person2.hello() // 'Hello Sam'
```

Constructor

- When we want to change the variable name, we can give **an argument** to the prototype function (lines 7 -- 8).
- We call this function constructor because it does the same thing as Java Constructor (CSC 260).

```
function Machine3(name){ // constructor with an argument
  this.name = name;
  this.hello = function() {
    console.log('Hello ' + this.name)
  }
}
var person1 = new Machine3('Sam');
var person2 = new Machine3('John');
person1.hello() // 'Hello Sam'
person2.hello() // 'Hello John'
```

Inheritance Using Prototype

- Any (prototype) objects have the 'prototype' property.
- When we need to extend prototype functions, we can add new features to the prototype using the 'prototype' property.
- As an example, this code shows how we can add the 'id' variable to the Machine3 function using the prototype property.

```
Machine3.prototype.id = 'chos5'; // extends the machine3
```

- We have a constructor function (line 1) that uses a prototype to add the id variable (line 2).
- We make an object using a constructor function, and we see that the 'id' is not a part of the object (lines 3 -- 4).
- When JavaScript accesses person1.id, it searches the id in a current (person1) object, as it cannot find the person1.id, it searches the parent's prototype variables to find the id variable in the prototype property. (line 4).

```
function Machine3(name) { ... }  
Machine3.prototype.id = 'chos5';  
var person1 = new Machine3('Sam');  
console.log(person1) // Machine3 { name: 'Sam', hello: ... }  
console.log(person1.id) // chos5
```

Example of Prototype - toString()

- We can use [...] notation to make an array object.
- However, it is the simplified syntax of 'new Array(...).'
- We can use the toString() function as it is a member of the Array constructor function.

```
var arr = [1,2,3]; // simplified syntax (constructor is hidden)
var arr = new Array(1,2,3);
console.log(arr.toString()); // We can use toString()
```

- We can use the 'Array.prototype' to check the available functions; also, we can use 'arr.**proto**' to get the same information.
- We may need to use Chrome's Developer feature to get the full list, as Node.js may show no information such as Object(0) or [].

```
console.log(Array.prototype); // to get parent's prototype (Object(0))  
console.log(arr.__proto__); // Object(0)
```

Dynamic Object Extension

- In this example, we make the p object (line 1) to be the prototype of an empty object (line 3).
- In this case, even though the object 'c' looks empty with nothing in it (line 4), c can access all the object elements of p (line 5).

```
var p = {name: 'Sam'};  
var c = {}  
c.__proto__ = p  
console.log(c) // {}  
console.log(c.name) // 'Sam'
```

ES5 Features

- JavaScript ES5 is the first major revision of JavaScript.
- JavaScript ES5 adds a new function `Object.create()`.
- We can use `Object.create()` to make an object, and the copied object's prototype has the p (line 2).
- So, when we print c, we get an empty object, but we can access the p.id variable through the prototype.

```
var p = {name: 'Sam', id: 'chos5'}  
var c = Object.create(p)  
console.log(c) // {}  
console.log(c.id) // c can access id
```

- Let's add a new variable id in the c object (line 1).
- In this case, the id is a member of the object c (line 2).
- The id in its prototype is overridden, as the c.id will be accessed, not the p.id, when we access the variable id.

```
c.id = 'chos6' // we create a new id
console.log(c) // {id: 'chos6'} prototype id is hidden
console.log(c.id) // chos6 is printed
```

OOP Language

ES6 Class Feature

- JavaScript ES6 is the version that actively adopts OOP ideas.
- In ES6, JavaScript introduces the 'class' concept to support the OOP paradigm.
- However, behind the scene, it is syntactic sugar, meaning that it mimics OOP programming methodology, not that ES6 is an OOP language.

- This example shows how we can use 'class' to incorporate the constructor function.

```
// ES5 or before
function Machine3(name){
  this.name = name;
  this.hello = function() {
    return('Hello ' + this.name)
  }
}

// ES6
class Machine4 {
  constructor(name) {
    this.name = name
    this.hello = function() {
      return('Hello ' + this.name)
    }
  }
}
```

When we need to add more prototype functions, we have two approaches.

- The first approach is to use a prototype to add a new function (lines 1 - 4).
- The second approach is to make the prototype function in the class (lines 14 - 16).

```
// Adding a function to prototype – method 1
Machine4.prototype.hello2 = function() {
    return('Hello2 ' + this.name)
}
```

```
// Adding a function to prototype – method 2
class Machine5 {
    constructor(name) {
        this.name = name
        this.hello = function() {
            return('Hello ' + this.name)
        }
    }
    hello2() { // added to prototype
        return('Hello2 ' + this.name)
    }
}
```

- We can make an object (line 1).
- In this example, person1 is an object from the class NewMachine5, so it has all the functions and variables in the constructor.
- However, even though it does not have hello2() function, it can access and use it (line 3).

```
var person1 = new NewMachine5('Sam', 'GH565');  
console.log(person1); // Machine5 { name: 'Sam', hello: ...}  
console.log(person1.hello2()) // Hello2 Sam
```

Getter and Setter

- In CSC 260, we learned the OOP idea, encapsulation, to hide data from direct access.
- From this idea, we can make the function `setAge()` to access and modify the variable (data) in an object.

```
var person = {  
  name: 'Sam',  
  age: 10,  
  setAge(age) {  
    this.age = parseInt(age); // if age is string type value  
  }  
}  
person.setAge(15)  
console.log(person)
```

- With JavaScript, we can use the set/get modifier keyword to make the functions, setAge/nextAge, properties.
- Properties are functions that can be used as if they are variables.

```
var person = {  
  name: 'Sam',  
  age: 10,  
  set setAge(age) { // set makes setAge function a setAge property  
    this.age = parseInt(age); // if age is string type value  
  },  
  get nextAge() {  
    return this.age + 1  
  }  
}  
person.setAge = 20 // setAge becomes a property  
console.log(person.nextAge)  
console.log(person)
```

Interesting features

Spread Operator

- We can use an array to aggregate multiple values (lines 1 -- 2).
- When we use an array with '...' prepended, we call the '...' a spread operator.
- The spread operator spreads out each element of an array as function arguments (lines 3 -- 4).

```
var array = ['hello', 'world'];  
console.log(array);    // ['hello', 'world']  
console.log(...array); // hello world  
console.log(array[0], array[1]) // same as ...array
```

- Let's say we have a function `hello()` that requires two arguments.
- When we don't use the spread operator, we should extract the two elements in an array as in line 7.
- But we don't have to do it with the spread operator that does the work for us.

```
var array = ['hello', 'world'];

function hello(x, y) {
  console.log(x);
  console.log(y);
}
hello(array[0], array[1]); // ugly
hello(...array); // better
```

- We can use the spread operator to concatenate arrays into one.
- As the code shows, we can spread two arrays into a new array.

```
var a = [1,2,3];  
var b = [4,5];  
var c = [...a, ...b]; // [1,2,3,4,5]
```

Spread Operator for an Object

- We can use the spread operator for an object.
- This example shows how we can copy all the elements in an object o1 into o2 with a new element added.

```
var o1 = { a : 1, b : 2 };  
var o2 = { c : 3, ...o1 };  
console.log(o2); // { c: 3, a: 1, b: 2 }
```

Deep Copy and Shallow Copy

- The spread operator is used for deep copy.
- When we copy arrays, we sometimes make a mistake copying only a reference; we call it a shallow copy (lines 1 - 3).
- To avoid this, we should copy all the elements; we call it a deep copy (lines 5 - 7).

```
var a = [1,2,3];  
var b = a; // shallow copy, a and b reference the same array.  
b[0] = 1000; console.log(a[0] == b[0]); // true
```

```
var a = [1,2,3]  
var b = [...a]  
b[0] = 2000; console.log(b[0] != a[0])
```

Rest Parameter

- The spread operator can be used as a function parameter when we don't know the number of arguments given (lines 1 -- 4).
- When we select only some of the arguments, we can use the normal parameter and the spread parameters to select only the arguments into an array (lines 5 -- 7).

```
function f(...params){  
  console.log(params);  
}  
f(1,2,3,4,5,6,7); // [1,2,3,4,5,6,7]  
function f2(a,b, ...params){  
  console.log(params);  
}  
f2(1,2,3,4,5,6,7); // [3,4,5,6,7]
```

Sameness Check in JavaScript

- You may remember that in Java, we use '==' operator for primitive type values, and equals() method to compare objects (CSC 260).
- JavaScript uses '==' operator when we compare two values ignoring data type.
- So, as long as values represent the same number, such as 1, 1.0, or even '1'. They are the same with the '==' operator.

```
console.log(1 == '1') // true  
console.log(1 == 1.0) // true
```

- So, when we compare two values and when we need to check the data type also, we should use the '===', or '!==', operator.
- In this example, line 1 returns false.
- However, line 2 returns true because there is no integer type in JavaScript; all the numbers are floating-point numbers.

```
console.log(1 !== '1') // false  
console.log(1 !== 1.0) // true
```

- We should also remember that the number 1 and true are the same with the '==' operator but not with the '===' operator.
- Also, 0 and false are the same with '==' operator, but false with '===' operator.

```
console.log(1 == true) // true
console.log(1 === true) // false

console.log(0 == false) // true
console.log(0 === false) // false
```

Object comparison

- We discussed the difference between shallow copy (reference copy) and deep copy.
- In this example, the two different objects comparison with '==' and '===' operators return false.
- It is because a and b store each object's reference (address).

```
var a = { name : 'Sam' };  
var b = {...a};  
  
console.log(a == b) // false  
console.log(a === b) // false
```

- To check shallow equality, we can use both '==' and '===' operators.

```
var a = { name : 'Sam' };  
var b = a  
  
console.log(a == b)  
console.log(a === b)
```

- To check deep equality, we need to compare if the two objects have the same values recursively.

```
function deepEqual(object1, object2) {  
  const keys1 = Object.keys(object1);  
  const keys2 = Object.keys(object2);  
  if (keys1.length !== keys2.length) {  
    return false;  
  }  
  for (const key of keys1) {  
    const val1 = object1[key];  
    const val2 = object2[key];  
    const areObjects = isObject(val1) && isObject(val2);  
    if (  
      areObjects && !deepEqual(val1, val2) ||  
      !areObjects && val1 !== val2  
    ) {  
      return false;  
    }  
  }  
  return true;  
}  
  
function isObject(object) {  
  return object !== null && typeof object === 'object';  
}
```

null and undefined Comparison

- In JavaScript, null and undefined are different.
- 'null' is a value, so it can be defined to some variables (line 1).
- However, 'undefined' means a variable is not defined. So, it's indication not a value.

```
var x = null;  
console.log(x) // null  
var y; // y is not defined  
console.log(y) // undefined
```

- When we use '==' to compare 'null' and 'undefined', it returns true.
- We can understand it, as '==' just compares if the two inputs are equivalent; like 1 and '1'.
- As we can expect, the '===' returns false when we compare 'null' and 'undefined.'

```
console.log(null == undefined) // true  
console.log(null === undefined) // false
```